

# Probability

## Contents

|                                                       |           |
|-------------------------------------------------------|-----------|
| Configuring R . . . . .                               | 1         |
| <b>1 Core properties of probabilities</b>             | <b>2</b>  |
| 1.1 Defining probabilities . . . . .                  | 2         |
| 1.2 Conditional probability . . . . .                 | 3         |
| <b>2 Random variables</b>                             | <b>5</b>  |
| 2.1 Binary variables . . . . .                        | 5         |
| 2.2 Count variables . . . . .                         | 5         |
| <b>3 Key probability distributions</b>                | <b>7</b>  |
| 3.1 The Bernoulli distribution . . . . .              | 8         |
| 3.2 The Poisson distribution . . . . .                | 9         |
| 3.3 The Negative-Binomial distribution . . . . .      | 14        |
| 3.4 Weibull Distribution . . . . .                    | 14        |
| <b>4 Characteristics of probability distributions</b> | <b>14</b> |
| 4.1 Probability density function . . . . .            | 14        |
| 4.2 Hazard function . . . . .                         | 15        |
| 4.3 Expectation . . . . .                             | 16        |
| 4.4 Variance and related characteristics . . . . .    | 19        |
| 4.5 The Central Limit Theorem . . . . .               | 23        |
| <b>5 Additional resources</b>                         | <b>25</b> |

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## Configuring R

Functions from these packages will be used throughout this document:

```
library(conflicted) # check for conflicting function definitions
# library(printr) # inserts help-file output into markdown output
library(rmarkdown) # Convert R Markdown documents into a variety of formats.
library(pander) # format tables for markdown
library(ggplot2) # graphics
library(ggfortify) # help with graphics
library(dplyr) # manipulate data
library(tibble) # `tibble`s extend `data.frame`s
library(magrittr) # `%>%` and other additional piping tools
library(haven) # import Stata files
library(knitr) # format R output for markdown
library(tidyr) # Tools to help to create tidy data
library(plotly) # interactive graphics
library(dobson) # datasets from Dobson and Barnett 2018
library(parameters) # format model output tables for markdown
library(haven) # import Stata files
```

```
library(latex2exp) # use LaTeX in R code (for figures and tables)
library(fs) # filesystem path manipulations
library(survival) # survival analysis
library(survminer) # survival analysis graphics
library(KMsurv) # datasets from Klein and Moeschberger
library(parameters) # format model output tables for
library(webshot2) # convert interactive content to static for pdf
library(forcats) # functions for categorical variables ("factors")
library(stringr) # functions for dealing with strings
library(lubridate) # functions for dealing with dates and times
```

Here are some R settings I use in this document:

```
rm(list = ls()) # delete any data that's already loaded into R

conflicts_prefer(dplyr::filter)
ggplot2::theme_set(
  ggplot2::theme_bw() +
    # ggplot2::labs(col = "") +
    ggplot2::theme(
      legend.position = "bottom",
      text = ggplot2::element_text(size = 12, family = "serif"))
knitr::opts_chunk$set(message = FALSE)
options('digits' = 6)

panderOptions("big.mark", ",")
pander::panderOptions("table.emphasize.rownames", FALSE)
pander::panderOptions("table.split.table", Inf)
conflicts_prefer(dplyr::filter) # use the `filter()` function from dplyr() by default
legend_text_size = 9
run_graphs = TRUE
```

---

Most of the content in this chapter should be review from UC Davis Epi 202.

## 1 Core properties of probabilities

### 1.1 Defining probabilities

**Definition 1.1** (Probability measure). A **probability measure**, often denoted  $\Pr()$  or  $P()$ , is a function whose domain is a  $\sigma$ -algebra<sup>1</sup> of possible outcomes,  $\mathcal{S}$ , and which satisfies the following properties:

1. For any statistical event  $A \in \mathcal{S}$ ,  $\Pr(A) \geq 0$ .
2. The probability of the union of all outcomes ( $\Omega \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \cup \mathcal{S}$ ) is 1:

$$\Pr(\Omega) = 1$$

3. The probability of the union of countably many mutually disjoint events  $A_1, A_2, \dots$  (where  $A_i \cap A_j = \emptyset$  for all  $i \neq j$ ) is equal to the sum of their probabilities (*countable additivity* or *sigma-additivity*):

$$\Pr\left(\bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} A_i\right) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \Pr(A_i)$$

---

<sup>1</sup><https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/%CE%A3-algebra>

Property 3 (*countable additivity*) is stronger than *finite additivity*, which only requires

$$\Pr(A_1 \cup \dots \cup A_n) = \sum_{i=1}^n \Pr(A_i)$$

for every finite collection of mutually disjoint events. Countable additivity implies finite additivity (set  $A_{n+1} = A_{n+2} = \dots = \emptyset$  in property 3, using  $\Pr(\emptyset) = 0$ ), but not vice versa: there exist set functions that satisfy finite additivity but fail countable additivity (see Wikipedia: Sigma-additive set function — An additive function which is not  $\sigma$ -additive<sup>2</sup>). Requiring countable additivity enables results such as the continuity of probability (if  $A_1 \supseteq A_2 \supseteq \dots$  with  $\bigcap_i A_i = \emptyset$ , then  $\Pr(A_i) \rightarrow 0$ ) and underpins the Theorem 1.4 for countable partitions.

---

**Theorem 1.1.** *If  $A$  and  $B$  are statistical events and  $A \subseteq B$ , then  $\Pr(A \cap B) = \Pr(A)$ .*

---

*Proof.* Left to the reader for now. □

---

**Theorem 1.2.**

$$\Pr(A) + \Pr(\neg A) = 1$$


---

*Proof.* By properties 2 and 3 of Definition 1.1. □

---

**Corollary 1.1.**

$$\Pr(\neg A) = 1 - \Pr(A)$$


---

*Proof.* By Theorem 1.2 and algebra. □

---

**Corollary 1.2.** *If the probability of an outcome  $A$  is  $\Pr(A) = \pi$ , then the probability that  $A$  does not occur is:*

$$\Pr(\neg A) = 1 - \pi$$


---

*Proof.* Using Corollary 1.1:

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(\neg A) &= 1 - \Pr(A) \\ &= 1 - \pi \end{aligned}$$


---

□

---

<sup>2</sup>[https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Sigma-additive\\_set\\_function#An\\_additive\\_function\\_which\\_is\\_not\\_%CF%83-additive](https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Sigma-additive_set_function#An_additive_function_which_is_not_%CF%83-additive)

## 1.2 Conditional probability

**Definition 1.2** (Conditional probability). For two events  $A$  and  $B$  with  $\Pr(B) > 0$ , the **conditional probability** of  $A$  given  $B$ , denoted  $\Pr(A \mid B)$ , is:

$$\Pr(A \mid B) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{\Pr(A \cap B)}{\Pr(B)}$$


---

**Theorem 1.3** (Law of conditional probability). For any two events  $A$  and  $B$  with  $\Pr(B) > 0$ :

$$\Pr(A \cap B) = \Pr(A \mid B) \cdot \Pr(B)$$


---

*Proof.* Rearranging Definition 1.2:

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(A \mid B) &= \frac{\Pr(A \cap B)}{\Pr(B)} \\ \Pr(A \cap B) &= \Pr(A \mid B) \cdot \Pr(B) \end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Example 1.1** (Applying the law of conditional probability). Suppose 30% of adults exercise regularly ( $\Pr(E) = 0.30$ ), and among adults who exercise regularly, 60% have low blood pressure ( $\Pr(L \mid E) = 0.60$ ).

Then the probability that a randomly selected adult both exercises regularly and has low blood pressure is:

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(L \cap E) &= \Pr(L \mid E) \cdot \Pr(E) \\ &= 0.60 \cdot 0.30 \\ &= 0.18 \end{aligned}$$


---

**Theorem 1.4** (Law of total probability). If  $B_1, B_2, \dots$  is a countable partition of the sample space (i.e., countably many mutually exclusive events whose union is the entire sample space), then for any event  $A$ :

$$\Pr(A) = \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \Pr(A \mid B_i) \cdot \Pr(B_i)$$


---

*Proof.* Since  $B_1, B_2, \dots$  partition the sample space, the events  $A \cap B_1, A \cap B_2, \dots$  are mutually exclusive and their union is  $A$ . By property 3 of Definition 1.1 (countable additivity), and then by Theorem 1.3:

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(A) &= \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \Pr(A \cap B_i) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} \Pr(A \mid B_i) \cdot \Pr(B_i) \end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Theorem 1.5** (Bayes' theorem). *For any two events  $A$  and  $B$  with  $\Pr(A) > 0$  and  $\Pr(B) > 0$ :*

$$\Pr(A | B) = \frac{\Pr(B | A) \cdot \Pr(A)}{\Pr(B)}$$


---

*Proof.* Apply Definition 1.2 to both  $\Pr(A | B)$  and  $\Pr(B | A)$ :

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(A | B) &= \frac{\Pr(A \cap B)}{\Pr(B)} \\ &= \frac{\Pr(B | A) \cdot \Pr(A)}{\Pr(B)} \end{aligned}$$

The second equality follows from Theorem 1.3 applied to  $\Pr(B \cap A) = \Pr(B | A) \cdot \Pr(A)$ .  $\square$

---

**Example 1.2** (Positive predictive value of a medical test). Suppose a disease test has 99% sensitivity and 99% specificity, and the prevalence of the disease in the population is 7%.

Let  $D$  be the event “person has the disease” and  $+$  be the event “test is positive”. Then:

- $\Pr(+ | D) = 0.99$  (sensitivity)
- $\Pr(\neg+ | \neg D) = 0.99$  (specificity), so the false positive rate is  $\Pr(+ | \neg D) = 1 - 0.99 = 0.01$
- $\Pr(D) = 0.07$  (prevalence)

By Bayes' theorem (Theorem 1.5) and the law of total probability (Theorem 1.4):

$$\begin{aligned} \Pr(D | +) &= \frac{\Pr(+ | D) \cdot \Pr(D)}{\Pr(+)} \\ &= \frac{\Pr(+ | D) \cdot \Pr(D)}{\Pr(+ | D) \cdot \Pr(D) + \Pr(+ | \neg D) \cdot \Pr(\neg D)} \\ &= \frac{0.99 \cdot 0.07}{0.99 \cdot 0.07 + 0.01 \cdot 0.93} \\ &= \frac{0.0693}{0.0693 + 0.0093} \\ &= \frac{0.0693}{0.0786} \\ &\approx 0.88 \end{aligned}$$

Even with a highly accurate test (99% sensitive and 99% specific), only about 88% of people who test positive actually have the disease, because the disease prevalence is relatively low (7%).

## 2 Random variables

### 2.1 Binary variables

**Definition 2.1** (binary variable). A **binary variable** is a random variable which has only two possible values in its range.

**Exercise 2.1** (Examples of binary variables). What are some examples of binary variables in the health sciences?

---

*Solution.* Examples of binary outcomes include:

- exposure (exposed vs unexposed)
- disease (diseased vs healthy)
- recovery (recovered vs unrecovered)

- relapse (relapse vs remission)
- return to hospital (returned vs not)
- vital status (dead vs alive)

---

## 2.2 Count variables

**Definition 2.2** (Count variable). A **count variable** is a random variable whose possible values are some subset of the non-negative integers; that is, a random variable  $X$  such that:

$$\mathcal{R}(X) \in \mathbb{N}$$

---

**Exercise 2.2.** What are some examples of count variables?

---

*Solution.*

- Number of fish in a pond
  - Number of cyclones per season
  - Seconds of tooth-brushing per session (if rounded)<sup>3</sup>
  - Infections per person-year
  - Visits to ER per person-month
  - Car accidents per 1000 miles driven
- 

**Definition 2.3** (Exposure magnitude). For many count outcomes, there is some sense of an **exposure magnitude**, such as **population size**, or **duration of observation**, which multiplicatively rescales the expected (mean) count.

---

**Exercise 2.3.** What are some examples of exposure magnitudes?

---

*Solution.*

Table 1: Examples of exposure units

| outcome            | exposure units                                 |
|--------------------|------------------------------------------------|
| disease incidence  | number of individuals<br>exposed; time at risk |
| car accidents      | miles driven                                   |
| worksite accidents | person-hours worked                            |
| population size    | size of habitat                                |

---

Exposure units are similar to the number of trials in a binomial distribution, but **in non-binomial count outcomes, there can be more than one event per unit of exposure.**

We can use  $t$  to represent continuous-valued exposures/observation durations, and  $n$  to represent discrete-valued exposures.

---

**Definition 2.4** (Event rate).

For a count outcome  $Y$  with exposure magnitude  $t$ , the **event rate** (denoted  $\lambda$ ) is defined as the mean of  $Y$  divided by the exposure magnitude. That is:

---

<sup>3</sup><https://pubmed.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/35587489/>

$$\mu \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \text{E}[Y|T = t]$$

$$\lambda \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{\mu}{t} \tag{1}$$

Event rate is somewhat analogous to odds in binary outcome models; it typically serves as an intermediate transformation between the mean of the outcome and the linear component of the model. However, in contrast with the odds function, the transformation  $\lambda = \mu/t$  is *not* considered part of the Poisson model's link function, and it treats the exposure magnitude covariate differently from the other covariates.

---

**Theorem 2.1** (Transformation function from event rate to mean). *For a count variable with mean  $\mu$ , event rate  $\lambda$ , and exposure magnitude  $t$ :*

$$\therefore \mu = \lambda \cdot t \tag{2}$$

---

*Solution.* Start from definition of event rate and use algebra to solve for  $\mu$ .

---

Equation 2 is analogous to the inverse-odds function for binary variables.

---

**Theorem 2.2.** *When the exposure magnitude is 0, there is no opportunity for events to occur:*

$$\text{E}[Y|T = 0] = 0$$

---

*Proof.*

$$\text{E}[Y|T = 0] = \lambda \cdot 0 = 0$$

□

---

## Probability distributions for count outcomes

- [Poisson distribution](#)
- [Negative binomial distribution](#)

---

## 3 Key probability distributions

---

Some distributions are typically used for outcome models (Table 2); other distributions are typically used for test statistics (Table 3).

Table 2: Distributions typically used for outcome models

| Distribution | Uses                       |
|--------------|----------------------------|
| Bernoulli    | Binary outcomes            |
| Binomial     | Sums of Bernoulli outcomes |

| Distribution      | Uses                                                                                          |
|-------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Poisson           | unbounded count outcomes                                                                      |
| Geometric         | Counts of non-events before an event occurs                                                   |
| Negative binomial | Mixtures of Poisson distributions, counts of non-events until a given number of events occurs |
| Normal (Gaussian) | Continuous outcomes without a more specific distribution                                      |
| exponential       | Time to event outcomes                                                                        |
| Gamma             | Time to event outcomes                                                                        |
| Weibull           | Time to event outcomes                                                                        |
| Log-normal        | Time to event outcomes                                                                        |

Table 3: Distributions typically used for test statistics

| Distribution          | Uses                                                                                             |
|-----------------------|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| $\chi^2$              | Regression comparisons (asymptotic), contingency table independence tests, goodness-of-fit tests |
| $F$                   | Gaussian model comparisons (exact)                                                               |
| $Z$ (standard normal) | Proportions, means, regression coefficients (asymptotic)                                         |
| $T$                   | Means, regression coefficients in Gaussian outcome models (exact)                                |

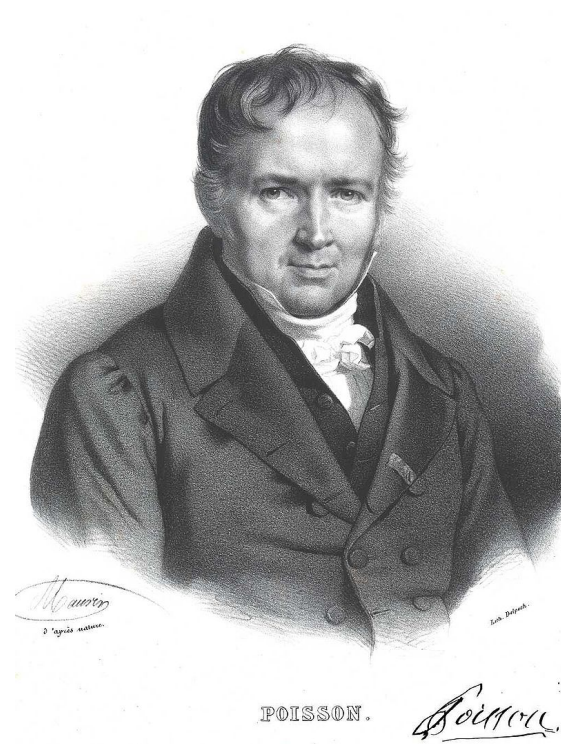
### 3.1 The Bernoulli distribution

**Definition 3.1** (Bernoulli distribution). The **Bernoulli distribution** family for a random variable  $X$  is defined as:

$$\begin{aligned}
 \Pr(X = x) &= 1_{x \in \{0,1\}} \pi^x (1 - \pi)^{1-x} \\
 &= \begin{cases} \pi, & x = 1 \\ 1 - \pi, & x = 0 \end{cases}
 \end{aligned}$$



### 3.2 The Poisson distribution



(a) Siméon Denis Poisson



(b) Les Poissons<sup>a</sup>

<sup>a</sup><https://youtu.be/UoJxBEQRLd0?t=12>

Figure 1: “Les Poissons”

---

**Exercise 3.1.** Define the Poisson distribution.

---

*Solution 3.1.*

*Definition 3.2* (Poisson distribution).

$$P(Y = y) = \frac{\mu^y e^{-\mu}}{y!}, y \in \mathbb{N} \quad (3)$$

(see Figure 2)

---

**Exercise 3.2.** What is the range of possible values for a Poisson distribution?

---

*Solution 3.2.*

$$\mathcal{R}(Y) = \{0, 1, 2, \dots\} = \mathbb{N}$$

---

**Theorem 3.1** (CDF of Poisson distribution).

$$P(Y \leq y) = e^{-\mu} \sum_{j=0}^{\lfloor y \rfloor} \frac{\mu^j}{j!} \quad (4)$$

(see Figure 3)

```

library(dplyr)
pois_dists <- tibble(
  mu = c(0.5, 1, 2, 5, 10, 20)
) |>
  reframe(
    .by = mu,
    x = 0:30
  ) |>
  mutate(
    `P(X = x)` = dpois(x, lambda = mu),
    `P(X <= x)` = ppois(x, lambda = mu),
    mu = factor(mu)
  )

library(ggplot2)
library(latex2exp)

plot0 <- pois_dists |>
  ggplot(
    aes(
      x = x,
      y = `P(X = x)`,
      fill = mu,
      col = mu
    )
  ) +
  theme(legend.position = "bottom") +
  labs(
    fill = latex2exp::TeX("$\\mu$"),
    col = latex2exp::TeX("$\\mu$"),
    y = latex2exp::TeX("$\\Pr_{\\mu}(X = x)$")
  )

plot1 <- plot0 +
  geom_segment(yend = 0) +
  facet_wrap(~mu)

print(plot1)

```

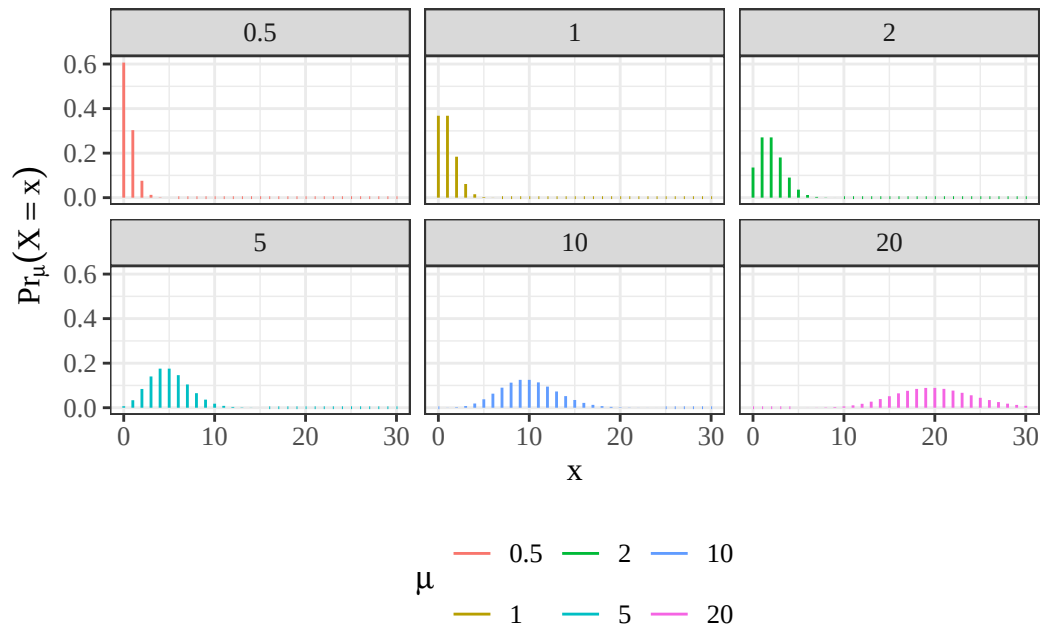


Figure 2: Poisson PMFs, by mean parameter  $\mu$

```
library(ggplot2)

plot2 <-
  plot0 +
  geom_step(alpha = 0.75) +
  aes(y = `P(X <= x)`) +
  labs(y = latex2exp::TeX("$\\Pr_{\\mu}(X \\leq x)$"))

print(plot2)
```

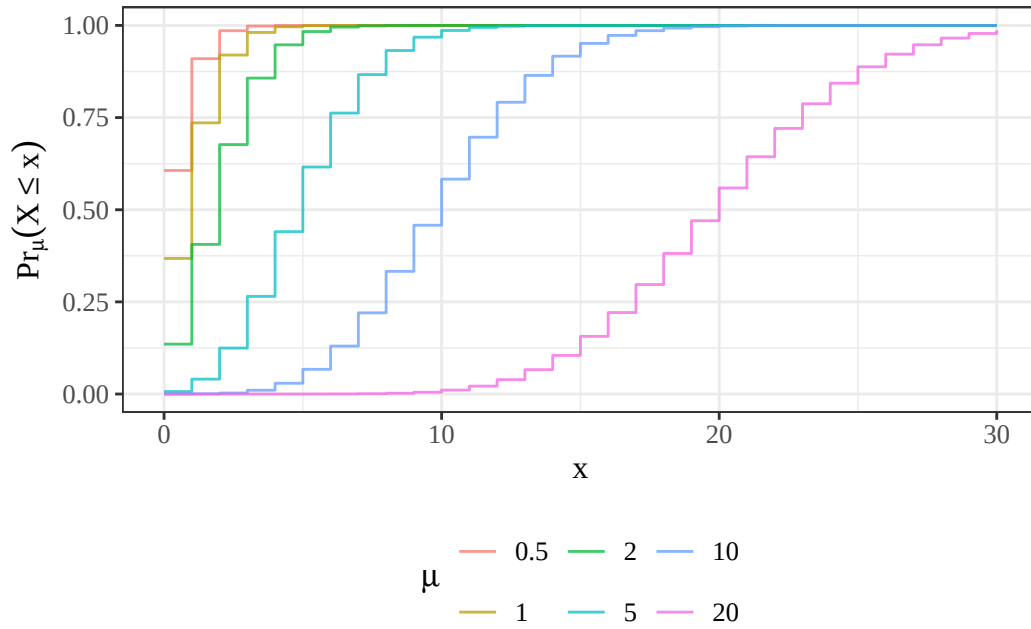


Figure 3: Poisson CDFs

---

**Exercise 3.3** (Poisson distribution functions). Let  $X \sim \text{Pois}(\mu = 3.75)$ .

Compute:

- $P(X = 4 | \mu = 3.75)$
- $P(X \leq 7 | \mu = 3.75)$
- $P(X > 5 | \mu = 3.75)$

---

*Solution.*

- $P(X = 4) = 0.19378$
- $P(X \leq 7) = 0.962379$
- $P(X > 5) = 0.177117$

---

**Theorem 3.2** (Properties of the Poisson distribution). If  $X \sim \text{Pois}(\mu)$ , then:

- $E[X] = \mu$
- $\text{Var}(X) = \mu$
- $P(X = x) = \frac{\mu}{x} P(X = x - 1)$
- For  $x < \mu$ ,  $P(X = x) > P(X = x - 1)$
- For  $x = \mu$ ,  $P(X = x) = P(X = x - 1)$
- For  $x > \mu$ ,  $P(X = x) < P(X = x - 1)$
- $\arg \max_x P(X = x) = \lfloor \mu \rfloor$

**Exercise 3.4.** Prove Theorem 3.2.

---

*Solution.*

$$\begin{aligned}
E[X] &= \sum_{x=0}^{\infty} x \cdot P(X = x) \\
&= 0 \cdot P(X = 0) + \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} x \cdot P(X = x) \\
&= 0 + \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} x \cdot P(X = x) \\
&= \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} x \cdot P(X = x) \\
&= \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} x \cdot \frac{\lambda^x e^{-\lambda}}{x!} \\
&= \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} x \cdot \frac{\lambda^x e^{-\lambda}}{x \cdot (x-1)!} && \text{[definition of factorial ("!") function]} \\
&= \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} \frac{\lambda^x e^{-\lambda}}{(x-1)!} \\
&= \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} \frac{(\lambda \cdot \lambda^{x-1}) e^{-\lambda}}{(x-1)!} \\
&= \lambda \cdot \sum_{x=1}^{\infty} \frac{(\lambda^{x-1}) e^{-\lambda}}{(x-1)!} \\
&= \lambda \cdot \sum_{y=0}^{\infty} \frac{(\lambda^y) e^{-\lambda}}{(y)!} && \text{[substituting } y \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} x - 1] \\
&= \lambda \cdot 1 && \text{[because PDFs sum to 1]} \\
&= \lambda
\end{aligned}$$

See also <https://statproofbook.github.io/P/poiss-mean>.

For the variance, see <https://statproofbook.github.io/P/poiss-var>.

### Accounting for exposure

If the exposures/observation durations, denoted  $T = t$  or  $N = n$ , vary between observations, we model:

$$\mu = \lambda \cdot t$$

$\lambda$  is interpreted as the “expected event rate per unit of exposure”; that is,

$$\lambda = \frac{E[Y|T = t]}{t}$$

#### ! Important

The exposure magnitude,  $T$ , is *similar* to a covariate in linear or logistic regression. However, there is an important difference: in count regression, **there is no intercept corresponding to  $E[Y|T = 0]$** . In other words, this model assumes that if there is no exposure, there can’t be any events.

**Theorem 3.3.** *If  $\mu = \lambda \cdot t$ , then:*

$$\log \mu = \log \lambda + \log t$$

**Definition 3.3** (Offset). When the linear component of a model involves a term without an unknown coefficient, that term is called an **offset**.

---

**Theorem 3.4.** If  $X$  and  $Y$  are independent Poisson random variables with means  $\mu_X$  and  $\mu_Y$ , their sum,  $Z = X + Y$ , is also a Poisson random variable, with mean  $\mu_Z = \mu_X + \mu_Y$ .

---

*Proof.* See [https://web.stanford.edu/class/archive/cs/cs109/cs109.1206/lectureNotes/LN12\\_independent\\_rvs.pdf](https://web.stanford.edu/class/archive/cs/cs109/cs109.1206/lectureNotes/LN12_independent_rvs.pdf), Example 3. □

---

### 3.3 The Negative-Binomial distribution

**Definition 3.4** (Negative binomial distribution).

$$P(Y = y) = \frac{\mu^y}{y!} \cdot \frac{\Gamma(\rho + y)}{\Gamma(\rho) \cdot (\rho + \mu)^y} \cdot \left(1 + \frac{\mu}{\rho}\right)^{-\rho}$$

where  $\rho$  is an overdispersion parameter and  $\Gamma(x) = (x - 1)!$  for integers  $x$ .

You don't need to memorize or understand this expression.

As  $\rho \rightarrow \infty$ , the second term converges to 1 and the third term converges to  $\exp\{-\mu\}$ , which brings us back to the Poisson distribution.

---

**Theorem 3.5.** If  $Y \sim \text{NegBin}(\mu, \rho)$ , then:

- $E[Y] = \mu$
- $\text{Var}(Y) = \mu + \frac{\mu^2}{\rho} > \mu$

### 3.4 Weibull Distribution

$$p(t) = \alpha \lambda x^{\alpha-1} e^{-\lambda x^\alpha}$$

$$\lambda(t) = \alpha \lambda x^{\alpha-1}$$

$$S(t) = e^{-\lambda x^\alpha}$$

$$E(T) = \Gamma(1 + 1/\alpha) \cdot \lambda^{-1/\alpha}$$

When  $\alpha = 1$  this is the exponential. When  $\alpha > 1$  the hazard is increasing and when  $\alpha < 1$  the hazard is decreasing. This provides more flexibility than the exponential.

We will see more of this distribution later.

## 4 Characteristics of probability distributions

### 4.1 Probability density function

**Definition 4.1** (probability density). If  $X$  is a continuous random variable, then the **probability density** of  $X$  at value  $x$ , denoted  $f(x)$ ,  $f_X(x)$ ,  $p(x)$ ,  $p_X(x)$ , or  $p(X = x)$ , is defined as the limit of the probability (mass) that  $X$  is in an interval around  $x$ , divided by the width of that interval, as that width reduces to 0.

$$f(x) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \lim_{\Delta \rightarrow 0} \frac{P(X \in [x, x + \Delta])}{\Delta}$$

See also Rothman et al. (2021) (Chapter 22, p. 535) and [https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Probability\\_density\\_function#Formal\\_definition](https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Probability_density_function#Formal_definition)

---

**Theorem 4.1** (Density function is derivative of CDF). *The density function  $f(t)$  or  $p(T = t)$  for a random variable  $T$  at value  $t$  is equal to the derivative of the cumulative probability function  $F(t) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} P(T \leq t)$ ; that is:*

$$f(t) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{\partial}{\partial t} F(t)$$


---

**Theorem 4.2** (Density functions integrate to 1). *For any density function  $f(x)$ ,*

$$\int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} f(x) dx = 1$$


---

## 4.2 Hazard function

**Definition 4.2** (Hazard function, hazard rate, hazard rate function).

The **hazard function**, **hazard rate**, **hazard rate function**, for a random variable  $T$  at value  $t$ , typically denoted as  $h(t)$ <sup>4</sup> or  $\lambda(t)$ ,<sup>5</sup> is the conditional density<sup>6</sup> of  $T$  at  $t$ , given  $T \geq t$ . That is:

$$\lambda(t) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} p(T = t | T \geq t)$$

If  $T$  represents the time at which an event occurs, then  $\lambda(t)$  is the probability that the event occurs at time  $t$ , given that it has not occurred prior to time  $t$ .

---

Table 4: Probability distribution functions

| Name                                   | Symbols            | Definition                         |
|----------------------------------------|--------------------|------------------------------------|
| Probability density function (PDF)     | $f(t), p(t)$       | $p(T = t)$                         |
| Cumulative distribution function (CDF) | $F(t), P(t)$       | $P(T \leq t)$                      |
| Survival function                      | $S(t), \bar{F}(t)$ | $P(T > t)$                         |
| Hazard function                        | $\lambda(t), h(t)$ | $p(T = t   T \geq t)$              |
| Cumulative hazard function             | $\Lambda(t), H(t)$ | $\int_{u=-\infty}^t \lambda(u) du$ |
| Log-hazard function                    | $\eta(t)$          | $\log\{\lambda(t)\}$               |

---

$$f(t) \xleftarrow{\frac{-S'(t)}{S(t)\lambda(t)}} S(t) \xleftarrow{\exp\{-\Lambda(t)\}} \Lambda(t) \xleftarrow{\int_{u=0}^t \lambda(u) du} \lambda(t) \xleftarrow{\exp\{\eta(t)\}} \eta(t)$$

$$f(t) \xrightarrow{\frac{f(t)/\lambda(t)}{\int_{u=t}^{\infty} f(u) du}} S(t) \xrightarrow{-\log S(t)} \Lambda(t) \xrightarrow{\Lambda'(t)} \lambda(t) \xrightarrow{\log\{\lambda(t)\}} \eta(t)$$


---

<sup>4</sup>for example in Dobson and Barnett (2018), Vittinghoff et al. (2012), Klein and Moeschberger (2003), and Kleinbaum and Klein (2012)

<sup>5</sup>for example, in Rothman et al. (2021) and Kalbfleisch and Prentice (2011)

<sup>6</sup>[probability.qmd#def-pdf](#)

### 4.3 Expectation

**Definition 4.3** (Expectation, expected value, population mean ). The **expectation, expected value, or population mean** of a *continuous* random variable  $X$ , denoted  $E[X]$ ,  $\mu(X)$ , or  $\mu_X$ , is the weighted mean of  $X$ 's possible values, weighted by the probability density function of those values:

$$E[X] = \int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} x \cdot p(X = x) dx$$

The **expectation, expected value, or population mean** of a *discrete* random variable  $X$ , denoted  $E[X]$ ,  $\mu(X)$ , or  $\mu_X$ , is the mean of  $X$ 's possible values, weighted by the probability mass function of those values:

$$E[X] = \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} x \cdot P(X = x)$$

(c.f. [https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Expected\\_value](https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Expected_value))

---

**Theorem 4.3** (Expectation of the Bernoulli distribution). *The expectation of a Bernoulli random variable with parameter  $\pi$  is:*

$$E[X] = \pi$$


---

*Proof.*

$$\begin{aligned} E[X] &= \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} x \cdot P(X = x) \\ &= \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}} x \cdot P(X = x) \\ &= (0 \cdot P(X = 0)) + (1 \cdot P(X = 1)) \\ &= (0 \cdot (1 - \pi)) + (1 \cdot \pi) \\ &= 0 + \pi \\ &= \pi \end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Theorem 4.4** (Expectation of time-to-event variables). *If  $T$  is a non-negative random variable, then:*

$$\mu(T | \tilde{X} = \tilde{x}) = \int_{t=0}^{\infty} S(t) dt$$


---

**Theorem 4.5** (Law of the Unconscious Statistician (LOTUS)). *For any function  $g$  of a discrete random variable  $X$ :*

$$E[g(X)] = \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} g(x) \cdot P(X = x)$$


---

*Proof.* Let  $Y = g(X)$ . By Definition 4.3 applied to  $Y$ :



$$\begin{aligned}
\mathbb{E}[g(X)] &= \mathbb{E}[Y] \\
&= \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \mathbb{P}(Y = y) \\
&= \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \mathbb{P}(g(X) = y) \\
&= \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \sum_{\substack{x \in \mathcal{R}(X) \\ g(x)=y}} \mathbb{P}(X = x) \\
&= \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} g(x) \cdot \mathbb{P}(X = x)
\end{aligned}$$

where the last equality follows by rearranging the double sum, grouping each term  $x$  by its image  $y = g(x)$ .  $\square$

---

LOTUS says that to compute  $\mathbb{E}[g(X)]$ , we do not need to first find the distribution of  $g(X)$ ; we can compute the expectation directly using the distribution of  $X$ .

For a *continuous* random variable  $X$  with density  $p(X = x)$ , the analogous formula is:

$$\mathbb{E}[g(X)] = \int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} g(x) \cdot p(X = x) dx$$


---

**Example 4.1** (Expected value of  $X^2$  for a Bernoulli variable). Let  $X \sim \text{Ber}(\pi)$ . By LOTUS (Theorem 4.5):

$$\begin{aligned}
\mathbb{E}[X^2] &= \sum_{x \in \{0,1\}} x^2 \cdot \mathbb{P}(X = x) \\
&= 0^2 \cdot \mathbb{P}(X = 0) + 1^2 \cdot \mathbb{P}(X = 1) \\
&= 0^2 \cdot (1 - \pi) + 1^2 \cdot \pi \\
&= 0 + \pi \\
&= \pi
\end{aligned}$$


---

**Definition 4.4** (Conditional expectation). **Discrete case.** Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be jointly distributed discrete random variables. The **conditional probability mass function** of  $Y$  given  $X = x$  (for values of  $x$  with  $\mathbb{P}(X = x) > 0$ ) is:

$$\mathbb{P}(Y = y \mid X = x) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{\mathbb{P}(X = x, Y = y)}{\mathbb{P}(X = x)}$$

The **conditional expectation** of  $Y$  given  $X = x$  is:

$$\mathbb{E}[Y \mid X = x] \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \mathbb{P}(Y = y \mid X = x)$$

**Continuous case.** Let  $X$  and  $Y$  be jointly distributed continuous random variables with joint density  $p(X = x, Y = y)$  and marginal density  $p(X = x)$ . The **conditional probability density function** of  $Y$  given  $X = x$  (for values of  $x$  with  $p(X = x) > 0$ ) is:

$$p(Y = y \mid X = x) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \frac{p(X = x, Y = y)}{p(X = x)}$$

The **conditional expectation** of  $Y$  given  $X = x$  is:

$$E[Y | X = x] \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \int_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot p(Y = y | X = x) dy$$

**Conditional expectation function.** The **conditional expectation function**  $E[Y | X]$  is the function (and hence random variable) of  $X$  obtained by evaluating  $E[Y | X = x]$  at  $X$ ; that is,  $E[Y | X] = g(X)$  where  $g(x) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} E[Y | X = x]$ .

---

**Theorem 4.6** (Law of iterated expectations). *For any two random variables  $X$  and  $Y$ :*

$$E[Y] = E[E[Y | X]]$$


---

*Proof. Discrete case.* When  $X$  and  $Y$  are discrete, applying Definition 4.3 to  $E[E[Y | X]]$  and then the law of total probability (Theorem 1.4) applied to the countable partition  $\{X = x : x \in \mathcal{R}(X)\}$ :

$$\begin{aligned} E[E[Y | X]] &= \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} E[Y | X = x] \cdot P(X = x) \\ &= \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} \left( \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot P(Y = y | X = x) \right) \cdot P(X = x) \\ &= \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \sum_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} P(Y = y | X = x) \cdot P(X = x) \\ &= \sum_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot P(Y = y) \\ &= E[Y] \end{aligned}$$

**Continuous case.** When  $X$  and  $Y$  are continuous, applying Definition 4.3 to  $E[E[Y | X]]$  and then using Definition 4.4 for  $E[Y | X = x]$ :

$$\begin{aligned} E[E[Y | X]] &= \int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} E[Y | X = x] \cdot p(X = x) dx \\ &= \int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} \left( \int_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot p(Y = y | X = x) dy \right) \cdot p(X = x) dx \\ &= \int_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot \left( \int_{x \in \mathcal{R}(X)} p(Y = y | X = x) \cdot p(X = x) dx \right) dy \\ &= \int_{y \in \mathcal{R}(Y)} y \cdot p(Y = y) dy \\ &= E[Y] \end{aligned}$$

where the third equality exchanges the order of integration by Fubini's theorem, and the fourth equality uses  $\int_x p(Y = y | X = x) \cdot p(X = x) dx = \int_x p(X = x, Y = y) dx = p(Y = y)$  (marginalization of the joint density).  $\square$

---

**Example 4.2** (Marginal expectation from conditional expectations). Suppose  $X$  is a binary random variable indicating treatment assignment ( $X = 1$  treated,  $X = 0$  control), with  $P(X = 1) = 0.5$ , and suppose the outcome  $Y$  has conditional expectations:

$$E[Y | X = 1] = 10, \quad E[Y | X = 0] = 6$$

By the law of iterated expectations (Theorem 4.6):

$$\begin{aligned}
E[Y] &= E[E[Y \mid X]] \\
&= E[Y \mid X = 1] \cdot P(X = 1) + E[Y \mid X = 0] \cdot P(X = 0) \\
&= 10 \cdot 0.5 + 6 \cdot 0.5 \\
&= 5 + 3 \\
&= 8
\end{aligned}$$


---

**Definition 4.5** (Expectation of a random matrix). For a random matrix  $\mathbf{A}$  of size  $m \times n$  with  $(i, j)$ -th element  $A_{ij}$ , the **expectation**  $E\mathbf{A}$  is the  $m \times n$  matrix whose  $(i, j)$ -th element is  $E[A_{ij}]$ :

$$E\mathbf{A} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \begin{pmatrix} E[A_{11}] & E[A_{12}] & \cdots & E[A_{1n}] \\ E[A_{21}] & E[A_{22}] & \cdots & E[A_{2n}] \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ E[A_{m1}] & E[A_{m2}] & \cdots & E[A_{mn}] \end{pmatrix}$$

In other words, expectation is applied **element-wise** to a random matrix.

---

## 4.4 Variance and related characteristics

**Definition 4.6** (Variance). The variance of a random variable  $X$  is the expectation of the squared difference between  $X$  and  $E[X]$ ; that is:

$$\text{Var}(X) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} E[(X - E[X])^2]$$


---

**Theorem 4.7** (Simplified expression for variance).

$$\text{Var}(X) = E[X^2] - (E[X])^2$$


---

*Proof.* By linearity of expectation, we have:

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{Var}(X) &\stackrel{\text{def}}{=} E[(X - E[X])^2] \\
&= E[X^2 - 2XE[X] + (E[X])^2] \\
&= E[X^2] - E[2XE[X]] + E[(E[X])^2] \\
&= E[X^2] - 2E[X]E[X] + (E[X])^2 \\
&= E[X^2] - (E[X])^2
\end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Definition 4.7** (Precision). The **precision** of a random variable  $X$ , often denoted  $\tau(X)$ ,  $\tau_X$ , or shorthand as  $\tau$ , is the inverse of that random variable's variance; that is:

$$\tau(X) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} (\text{Var}(X))^{-1}$$

**Definition 4.8** (Standard deviation). The standard deviation of a random variable  $X$  is the square-root of the variance of  $X$ :

$$\text{SD}(X) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sqrt{\text{Var}(X)}$$


---

**Definition 4.9** (Covariance). For any two one-dimensional random variables,  $X, Y$ :

$$\text{Cov}(X, Y) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} E[(X - E[X])(Y - E[Y])]$$


---

**Theorem 4.8.**

$$\text{Cov}(X, Y) = E[XY] - E[X]E[Y]$$


---

*Proof.* Left to the reader. □

---

**Lemma 4.1** (The covariance of a variable with itself is its variance). For any random variable  $X$ :

$$\text{Cov}(X, X) = \text{Var}(X)$$

*Proof.*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Cov}(X, X) &= E[XX] - E[X]E[X] \\ &= E[X^2] - (E[X])^2 \\ &= \text{Var}(X) \end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Definition 4.10** (Variance/covariance of a  $p \times 1$  random vector). For a  $p \times 1$  dimensional random vector  $\tilde{X}$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Var}(\tilde{X}) &\stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \text{Cov}(\tilde{X}) \\ &\stackrel{\text{def}}{=} E[(\tilde{X} - E\tilde{X})(\tilde{X} - E\tilde{X})^\top] \end{aligned}$$


---

**Theorem 4.9** (Elements of the variance-covariance matrix are pairwise covariances). For a  $p \times 1$  random vector  $\tilde{X} = (X_1, \dots, X_p)^\top$ , the  $(i, j)$ -th element of  $\text{Var}(\tilde{X})$  is  $\text{Cov}(X_i, X_j)$ :

$$\text{Var}(\tilde{X}) = \begin{pmatrix} \text{Var}(X_1) & \text{Cov}(X_1, X_2) & \cdots & \text{Cov}(X_1, X_p) \\ \text{Cov}(X_2, X_1) & \text{Var}(X_2) & \cdots & \text{Cov}(X_2, X_p) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \text{Cov}(X_p, X_1) & \text{Cov}(X_p, X_2) & \cdots & \text{Var}(X_p) \end{pmatrix}$$


---

*Proof.* Let  $\mu_i = E[X_i]$  for  $i = 1, \dots, p$ , so  $E\tilde{X} = (\mu_1, \dots, \mu_p)^\top$ . By Definition 4.10:

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{Var}(\tilde{X}) &= \mathbb{E}[(\tilde{X} - \mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\tilde{X} - \mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top] \\
&= \mathbb{E}\left[\begin{pmatrix} X_1 - \mu_1 \\ \vdots \\ X_p - \mu_p \end{pmatrix} (X_1 - \mu_1 \quad \cdots \quad X_p - \mu_p)\right] \\
&= \mathbb{E}\left[\begin{pmatrix} (X_1 - \mu_1)(X_1 - \mu_1) & \cdots & (X_1 - \mu_1)(X_p - \mu_p) \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ (X_p - \mu_p)(X_1 - \mu_1) & \cdots & (X_p - \mu_p)(X_p - \mu_p) \end{pmatrix}\right] \\
&= \begin{pmatrix} \mathbb{E}[(X_1 - \mu_1)(X_1 - \mu_1)] & \cdots & \mathbb{E}[(X_1 - \mu_1)(X_p - \mu_p)] \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \mathbb{E}[(X_p - \mu_p)(X_1 - \mu_1)] & \cdots & \mathbb{E}[(X_p - \mu_p)(X_p - \mu_p)] \end{pmatrix} \\
&= \begin{pmatrix} \text{Cov}(X_1, X_1) & \cdots & \text{Cov}(X_1, X_p) \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \text{Cov}(X_p, X_1) & \cdots & \text{Cov}(X_p, X_p) \end{pmatrix} \\
&= \begin{pmatrix} \text{Var}(X_1) & \cdots & \text{Cov}(X_1, X_p) \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \text{Cov}(X_p, X_1) & \cdots & \text{Var}(X_p) \end{pmatrix}
\end{aligned}$$

where:

- the step from the third to fourth line uses Definition 4.5,
- the step from the fourth to fifth line uses Definition 4.9, and
- the last step uses Lemma 4.1.

□

---

**Theorem 4.10** (Alternate expression for variance of a random vector).

$$\text{Var}(\tilde{X}) = \mathbb{E}[\tilde{X}\tilde{X}^\top] - (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top$$


---

*Proof.*

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{Var}(\tilde{X}) &= \mathbb{E}[(\tilde{X} - \mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\tilde{X} - \mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top] \\
&= \mathbb{E}[\tilde{X}\tilde{X}^\top - \tilde{X}(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top - (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})\tilde{X}^\top + (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top] \\
&= \mathbb{E}[\tilde{X}\tilde{X}^\top] - (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top - (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top + (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top \\
&= \mathbb{E}[\tilde{X}\tilde{X}^\top] - (\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})(\mathbb{E}\tilde{X})^\top
\end{aligned}$$

□

---

**Theorem 4.11** (Variance of a linear combination). *For any vector of random variables  $\tilde{X} = (X_1, \dots, X_n)$  and corresponding vector of constants  $\tilde{a} = (a_1, \dots, a_n)$ , the variance of their linear combination is:*

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{Var}(\tilde{a} \cdot \tilde{X}) &= \text{Var}\left(\sum_{i=1}^n a_i X_i\right) \\
&= \tilde{a}^\top \text{Var}(\tilde{X}) \tilde{a} \\
&= \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_i a_j \text{Cov}(X_i, X_j)
\end{aligned}$$


---

*Proof.* Left to the reader...

□

---

**Corollary 4.1.** For any two random variables  $X$  and  $Y$  and scalars  $a$  and  $b$ :

$$\text{Var}(aX + bY) = a^2 \text{Var}(X) + b^2 \text{Var}(Y) + 2(a \cdot b) \text{Cov}(X, Y)$$

---

*Proof.* Apply Theorem 4.11 with  $n = 2$ ,  $X_1 = X$ , and  $X_2 = Y$ .

Or, see <https://statproofbook.github.io/P/var-lincomb.html>

□

---

**Definition 4.11** (homoskedastic, heteroskedastic). A random variable  $Y$  is **homoskedastic** (with respect to covariates  $X$ ) if the variance of  $Y$  does not vary with  $X$ :

$$\text{Var}(Y|X = x) = \sigma^2, \forall x$$

Otherwise it is **heteroskedastic**.

---

**Definition 4.12** (Statistical independence). A set of random variables  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  are **statistically independent** if their joint probability is equal to the product of their marginal probabilities:

$$\Pr(X_1 = x_1, \dots, X_n = x_n) = \prod_{i=1}^n \Pr(X_i = x_i)$$

💡 Tip

The symbol for independence,  $\perp$ , is essentially just  $\prod$  upside-down. So the symbol can remind you of its definition (Definition 4.12).

---

**Definition 4.13** (Conditional independence). A set of random variables  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  are **conditionally statistically independent** given a set of covariates  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  if the joint probability of the  $Y_i$ s given the  $X_i$ s is equal to the product of their marginal probabilities:

$$\Pr(Y_1 = y_1, \dots, Y_n = y_n | X_1 = x_1, \dots, X_n = x_n) = \prod_{i=1}^n \Pr(Y_i = y_i | X_i = x_i)$$

---

**Definition 4.14** (Identically distributed). A set of random variables  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  are **identically distributed** if they have the same range  $\mathcal{R}(X)$  and if their marginal distributions  $P(X_1 = x_1), \dots, P(X_n = x_n)$  are all equal to some shared distribution  $P(X = x)$ :

$$\forall i \in \{1 : n\}, \forall x \in \mathcal{R}(X) : P(X_i = x) = P(X = x)$$

---

**Definition 4.15** (Conditionally identically distributed). A set of random variables  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  are **conditionally identically distributed** given a set of covariates  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  if  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  have the same range  $\mathcal{R}(X)$  and if the distributions  $P(Y_i = y_i | X_i = x_i)$  are all equal to the same distribution  $P(Y = y | X = x)$ :

$$P(Y_i = y | X_i = x) = P(Y = y | X = x)$$

---

**Definition 4.16** (Independent and identically distributed). A set of random variables  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  are **independent and identically distributed** (shorthand: “ $X_i$  iid”) if they are statistically independent and identically distributed.

---

**Definition 4.17** (Conditionally independent and identically distributed). A set of random variables  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  are **conditionally independent and identically distributed** (shorthand: “ $Y_i|X_i$  ciid” or just “ $Y_i|X_i$  iid”) given a set of covariates  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  if  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  are conditionally independent given  $X_1, \dots, X_n$  and  $Y_1, \dots, Y_n$  are identically distributed given  $X_1, \dots, X_n$ .

## 4.5 The Central Limit Theorem

The sum of many independent or nearly-independent random variables with small variances (relative to the number of RVs being summed) produces bell-shaped distributions.

For example, consider the sum of five dice (Figure 4).

```
library(dplyr)
dist =
  expand.grid(1:6, 1:6, 1:6, 1:6, 1:6) |>
  rowwise() |>
  mutate(total = sum(c_across(everything())) |>
  ungroup() |>
  count(total) |>
  mutate(`p(X=x)` = n/sum(n))

library(ggplot2)

dist |>
  ggplot() +
  aes(x = total, y = `p(X=x)`) +
  geom_col() +
  xlab("sum of dice (x)") +
  ylab("Probability of outcome, Pr(X=x)") +
  expand_limits(y = 0)
```

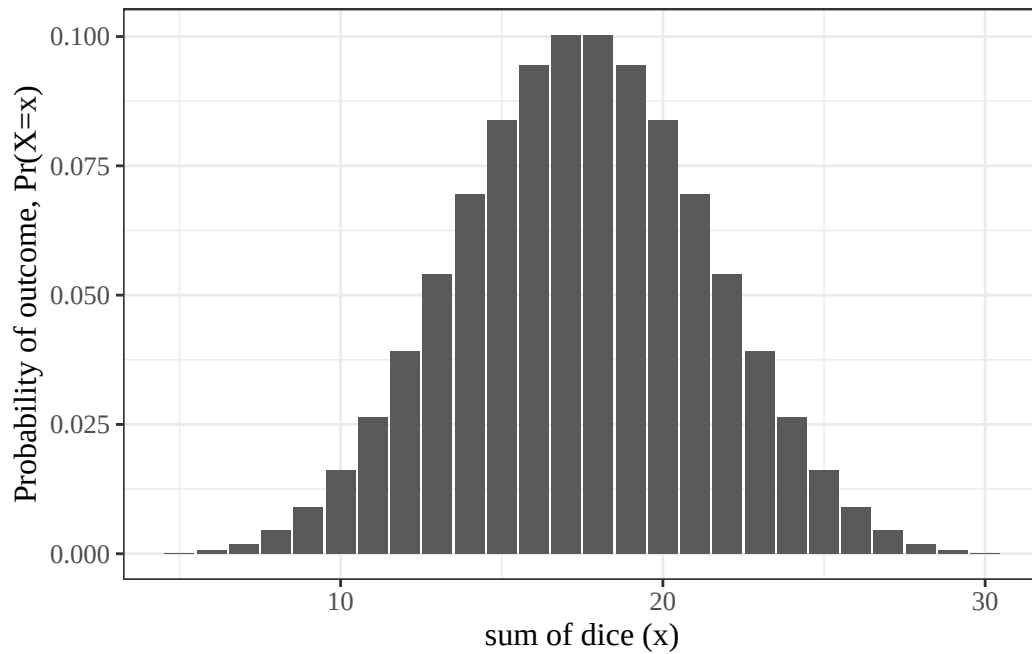


Figure 4: Distribution of the sum of five dice

In comparison, the outcome of just one die is not bell-shaped (Figure 5).

```
library(dplyr)
dist =
  expand.grid(1:6) |>
  rowwise() |>
  mutate(total = sum(c_across(everything()))) |>
  ungroup() |>
  count(total) |>
  mutate(`p(X=x)` = n/sum(n))

library(ggplot2)

dist |>
  ggplot() +
  aes(x = total, y = `p(X=x)`) +
  geom_col() +
  xlab("sum of dice (x)") +
  ylab("Probability of outcome, Pr(X=x)") +
  expand_limits(y = 0)
```



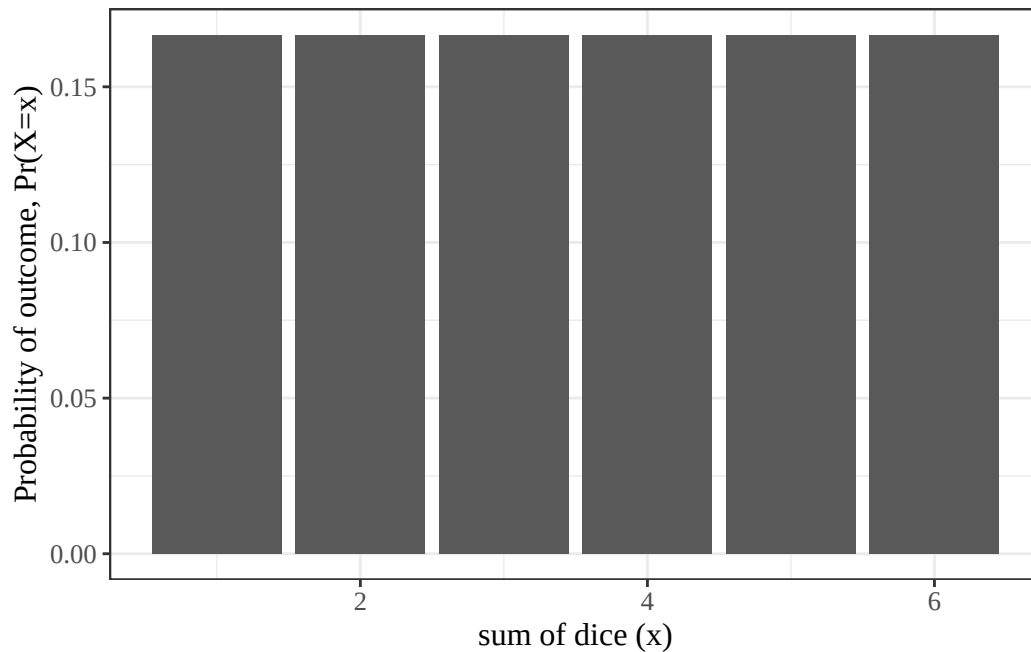


Figure 5: Distribution of the outcome of one die

What distribution does a single die have?

Answer: discrete uniform on 1:6.

## 5 Additional resources

- Miller (2017)

Dobson, Annette J, and Adrian G Barnett. 2018. *An Introduction to Generalized Linear Models*. 4th ed. CRC press. <https://doi.org/10.1201/9781315182780>.

Kalbfleisch, John D, and Ross L Prentice. 2011. *The Statistical Analysis of Failure Time Data*. John Wiley & Sons.

Klein, John P, and Melvin L Moeschberger. 2003. *Survival Analysis: Techniques for Censored and Truncated Data*. Vol. 1230. Springer. <https://link.springer.com/book/10.1007/b97377>.

Kleinbaum, David G, and Mitchel Klein. 2012. *Survival Analysis: A Self-Learning Text*. 3rd ed. Springer. <https://link.springer.com/book/10.1007/978-1-4419-6646-9>.

Miller, Steven J. 2017. *The Probability Lifesaver : All the Tools You Need to Understand Chance*. A Princeton Lifesaver Study Guide. Princeton University Press. <https://press.princeton.edu/books/hardcover/9780691149547/the-probability-lifesaver>.

Rothman, Kenneth J., Timothy L. Lash, Tyler J. VanderWeele, and Sebastien Haneuse. 2021. *Modern Epidemiology*. Fourth edition. Wolters Kluwer.

Vittinghoff, Eric, David V Glidden, Stephen C Shiboski, and Charles E McCulloch. 2012. *Regression Methods in Biostatistics: Linear, Logistic, Survival, and Repeated Measures Models*. 2nd ed. Springer. <https://doi.org/10.1007/978-1-4614-1353-0>.